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Economy and Art in Egypt from Alexander the Great to the Arab Conquest

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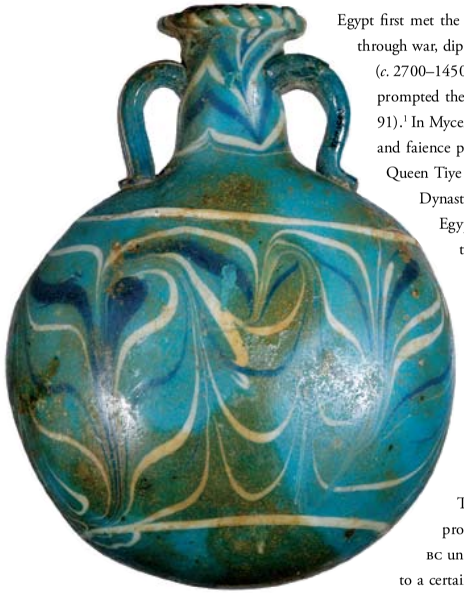
Egypt and the Ancient Greek World: Early Encounters



Egypt first met the ancient Greeks in the second millennium BC along trade routes and through war, diplomacy and religion. Egyptian style influenced the art of the Minoans (*c.* 2700–1450 BC) and Mycenaeans (*c.* 1550–1150 BC), and imported Aegean pottery prompted the creation in Egypt of local wares in Cretan and Mycenaean style (fig. 91).[1] In Mycenae, the capital of the Mycenaean empire itself, the discovery of scarabs and faience plaques bearing the cartouches of Amenhotep II, Amenhotep III and Queen Tiye points to concrete links between the Mycenaean rulers and the 18th Dynasty. Not all encounters were peaceful: Mycenaeans were listed by ancient Egyptians among the Sea People who raided their country from the late twelfth century through to the middle of the eleventh. Around 570 BC the city of Naukratis in Egypt was given by Amasis II (570–526 BC) to Greek mercenaries as their residence. Strategically located on the Nile Delta and the route leading to the Libyan Desert, Naukratis thrived as a trading colony *(emporion)* in Egypt until the Byzantine period. Egyptian grain, linen and papyri were exchanged for silver, timber, olive oil and wine from Greece.[2]

From Alexander to Cleopatra VII

The conquest of Egypt by Alexander the Great in 332 BC (fig. 92) had a profound effect on the country's political and cultural trajectory. From 331 BC until Alexander's death in 323 BC the governance of Egypt was entrusted to a certain Cleomenes, a citizen of Naukratis, who ruled the country with the title of satrap. Alexander's death plunged his vast empire into a deep crisis. Some of his former generals emerged as potential successors *(diadochoi)* and rulers for the various conquered areas. Ptolemy was one of them. He was appointed satrap of Egypt by general Perdiccas in 322 BC, to rule the country in the name of Philip Arrideos, Alexander's half-brother, and Alexander IV, Alexander's infant. Following a power struggle, Ptolemy finally assumed sole power in 305 BC under the title of Ptolemy I Soter (Saviour), king of Egypt, and founder of the Ptolemaic dynasty. His descendants ruled Egypt for almost 300 years until the death of the last Ptolemaic queen, Cleopatra VII, in 30 BC.[3] Among Ptolemy I's initial steps to legitimize his claim over Egypt were his efforts to secure the body of Alexander for Egypt, and to strike high-quality silver coins bearing images of the deified Alexander. On one of the first issues struck in the mint of Alexandria, Alexander appears on the obverse wearing an elephant scalp with trunks and tusks and a royal diadem (fig. 93). The inclusion in the headdress of the ram's horn of Zeus Ammon conveys Alexander's public persona as son of Zeus Ammon following

Above
91. Two-handled flask, New Kingdom, 18th Dynasty, *c.* 1350 BC. 10 × 7 × 4 CM., *Myers Collection at Eton College, ECM 1589.* This beautiful pale blue glass flask was modelled on imported Mycenaean flasks of precious oil.

Opposite
92. Bust of Alexander, Pentelic marble, 340–330 BC. Height 35 CM., *Acropolis Museum, Athens, no. 1331.*

his visit to the oracle of Ammon in the Siwa desert. Reference to Alexander continues on the reverse of the coin with the inclusion of his name ALEXANDROU (of Alexander). It is only the image of an eagle on a thunderbolt, Ptolemy's personal badge, standing next to the goddess Athena, that hints at the identity of the real ruler of Egypt around 320/19 BC.[4] It was not until about 304 BC that Ptolemy struck gold staters in his own name. The obverse inscription identifies him as Ptolemy *Basileus* (King) and the accompanying iconography preserves the earliest realistic portrait of a Hellenistic ruler. The same degree of realism can be found in

Above
93. Silver tetradrachm, struck under Ptolemy I, mint of Alexandria, 319–315 BC. Obverse: head of Alexander with the ram's horn and headband; Reverse: Athena standing. The vertical inscription in Greek refers to Alexander the Great. Test mark on both the obverse and reverse surface. Diameter 2.6 CM., *The Barber Institute Coin Collection, G13.*

Right
94. *Ptolemy I Soter*, marble, 3rd century BC, height 24 CM. *Musée du Louvre, Département des Antiquités Grecques, Etrusques et Romaines, Ma 849 (MR 457).*

Left
95. *Ptolemy I Soter as Pharaoh*, basalt bust, 64 × 66 × 34 CM. The Egyptian *nemes* headdress and the *uraeus* worn by Ptolemy are indicative of his royal status. *British Museum, Department of Ancient Egypt and Sudan, 1914,0216.1.*

Below
96. Gold octadrachm of Ptolemy II Philadelphus, king of Egypt (*reg* 284–246 BC), struck in Alexandria. The reverse shows the deified portraits of Ptolemy I and Queen Berenice, as the accompanying inscription THEOI (gods) implies. The obverse is reserved for Ptolemy II and his queen and sister Arsinoe. The accompanying inscription PHILADELPHOI (brother- and sister-loving) refers to the Ptolemies' custom of marrying their siblings. Diameter 28 MM., weight 27.730 g. *British Museum, CM 1964-13-3-2.*

representations of Ptolemy in other artistic media, such as a marble bust in which he appears as a Hellenistic ruler (fig. 94), or a basalt bust that shows him as successor to the Egyptian Pharaohs (fig. 95). The desire of his descendants to present themselves as ideal Egyptian rulers extended to their marital arrangements. Ptolemy II adopted the Egyptian custom for the pharaohs to marry their sisters. His decision, which was considered incest in the ancient Greek world, was largely followed by the later Ptolemies and found its most explicit expression in the iconography and wording of his gold staters. While the reverse of his coins is reserved for Ptolemy II's deified parents, Ptolemy I and Berenice, the obverse shows Ptolemy II and his queen and sister Arsinoe (fig. 96). The accompanying inscription identifies the couple as PHILADELPHOI (brother- and sister-loving).[5] The Ptolemies adorned Egypt and its capital city Alexandria with new temples, palaces and places of learning. Among the latter the museum and library of Alexandria, both created by Ptolemy I, stand out. The museum was in effect the

Right, above
97. Denarius of Mark Antony, struck at a moving mint in the East in 32 BC. The head of Mark Antony with an Armenian tiara behind, coupled with the inscription in Latin 'Armenia Conquered by Antony' refers to Antony's victories in Armenia. The reverse preserves a rather unflattering diademed bust of Cleopatra VII, the last Ptolemaic queen. Cleopatra is proclaimed on this coin as 'Queen of Kings and her sons, Kings'. Weight 3.55 g. Diameter 1.8 CM., *The Barber Institute Coin Collection, R809.*

Right, below
98. Bronze drachm of Emperor Trajan, mint of Alexandria. The reverse depicts the Serapeion, the temple of Serapis in Alexandria, with the statue of the god inside. Diameter 2.95 CM., *The Barber Institute Coin Collection, R160.*

world's first university and attracted such luminaries in the fields of mathematics, geography and astronomy as Euclid, Archimedes, Eratosthenes and Hipparchos. Under royal patronage the library grew into the biggest and most important research centre of the ancient world. In that great learning environment the architect Sostratus of Knidos designed for Ptolemy II a monumental lighthouse at the entrance of the port of Alexandria. The Pharos, an edifice about 120 metres high, dressed in white marble and decorated with sculpture, was topped by a lantern with a giant bonfire whose light, possibly focused by mirrors, was projected into a beam visible from far away. The size of the lighthouse and the power of the beam were so legendary that the monument was proclaimed by ancient authors as one of the Seven Wonders of the World, and graced the iconography of several coin series minted in Alexandria during the Roman period. The lighthouse was still in use at the time of the Arab conquest of Egypt in the seventh century, but was hit by earthquakes in 692, 1303 and 1323. In 1349 the Arab

traveller Ibn Battuta commented on the ruinous state of the building, and in 1480 the Mamluk sultan Ashraf Qa'itbay erected a fort on the same spot, reusing parts of its original building material. Religion was for the Ptolemies an equally important part of their political agenda. Ptolemy III (*reg* 246–222 BC) commissioned a magnificent temple for Serapis, the God Osiris-Apis of the Egyptians.[6] The cult of Serapis became very popular during the Hellenistic and Roman period, and both Serapis and his temple in Alexandria made frequent appearances on Roman coins struck in Alexandria from the first century AD into the third (figs. 98 and 101). The middle of the first century BC found Egypt under the joint rule of eighteen-year-old Cleopatra VII (*reg* 51–30 BC) and her younger brother Ptolemy XIII. Egypt's financial troubles, the debasement of its silver currency, dynastic intrigues and growing insecurity in the face of Rome's expansionary policy prompted Cleopatra VII to seek close links first with Julius Caesar and later Mark Antony. Her country was saved, though only for twenty years. In 30 BC, three years after his fleet was defeated by Octavian at Actium, Mark Antony committed suicide and Cleopatra followed him shortly after, preferring death to the humiliation of being paraded in Octavian's triumph. Her death marked the end of Ptolemaic rule and the beginning of Egypt's life as a Roman province. The historical and fictional portrait of Cleopatra, part of western romantic literature, music and cinematography, will always intrigue those interested in knowing what the last Ptolemaic queen actually looked like, and the ways in which she manipulated her public image. An blue glass cameo (1st century BC), now in the collections of the British Museum, shows the young and attractive Cleopatra as a Greek and Egyptian queen (fig. 99). Her dress and hairstyle are typical Greek, while the triple *ureus* (three cobras in attack position) on her head, the symbol of Egyptian kingship, projects her image as ruler of Upper and Lower Egypt.[7] Cleopatra must have had less say regarding the portrait of her created by an unknown Roman die-cutter for the coins of Mark Antony (fig. 97). There she appears distinctly middle-aged and unattractive, perpetuating the age-old question, 'what is beauty?'

Above
99. Blue glass cameo with depiction of Cleopatra VII, 1st century BC. Height 1.3 CM., *British Museum, AN36919001.*

Below
100. Silver denarius of Emperor Hadrian (*reg* AD 117–38), struck in Rome. The reverse shows the personification of Egypt reclining, her left hand resting on a basket, her right one holding *sistrum*. At her feet there is an ibis. Diameter 1.8 CM., *The Barber Institute Coin Collection, R1133*.

Opposite
101. Billon tetradrachms of Emperor Antoninus Pius (*reg* AD 138–161) struck in Alexandria. The reverse of each coin celebrates aspects of the religious life and sources of wealth in Roman Egypt. The depiction of Serapis on coin RE269 acknowledges the importance of that Hellenistic-Egyptian god across the Roman Empire, and his temple, the Serapeion, which was an important landmark in Alexandria. The reverse of coin RE301 makes reference to Egypt's source of agricultural wealth, the River Nile, who appears reclining on a crocodile. Diameter 2.45 CM., *The Barber Institute Coin Collection, RE269*; Diameter 2.5 CM., *The Barber Institute Coin Collection, RE301*.

Roman Egypt

The annexation of Egypt to the Roman Empire in 30 BC ended three hundred years of financial and monetary autonomy of the Ptolemaic kingdom. The closed monetary system practised by the Ptolemies was abolished by Roman emperors, eager to appropriate Egypt's sources of agricultural wealth and metal to fund expensive building programmes and military campaigns.[8] Tiberius (*reg* AD 14–37) fixed the silver content of the Alexandrian tetradrachms to make it conform to that of the Roman denarii, resulting in new silver tetradrachms of lower quality. Debasement of the Roman denarius under Nero (*reg* AD 54–68) and Trajan (*reg* AD 98–117) and monetary reform under Domitian (*reg* AD 81–96) did little to improve the metallic content of the Alexandrian silver coins, which under Trajan were supplemented by a great variety of bronze drachms. Trajan's successor Hadrian (*reg* AD 117–38) took an active interest in the iconography of his coinage as a whole. In the case of Egypt his interest is manifested in the reverse iconography of both his Alexandrian tetradrachms and the denarii from the mint of Rome on which he commemorated his travels in Egypt in AD 130. On the reverse of the latter, the personification of Egypt reclining on a basket and holding a sistrum alludes to the economic importance of the area for Rome and its religious wealth (fig. 100). From the reign of Marcus Aurelius (*reg* 161–80) until the currency reform of Diocletian (*reg* 284–305) in 296/7, Alexandrian silver coins suffered continuous debasement until they became indistinguishable from the bronze ones. Despite their poor metallic content the Alexandrian coins of the second and third centuries AD present an extraordinary array of iconographical motifs, all very topical and intended for circulation within the province of Egypt. Images of the river Nile offer visual references to the agricultural wealth of Egypt (fig. 101), the famous lighthouse on coins of Commodus (*reg* 180–92) displays local pride (fig. 102), while images of Serapis and Isis on coins struck in the name of Roman emperors and their wives emphasized the association of members of the imperial family with Egyptian deities (figs. 101, 103 and 104), whose cult had become very popular in the Roman empire.

Left
102. Bronze drachm of Emperor Commodus (*reg* AD 180–92), struck in Alexandria. The reverse presents a boat approaching the famous Lighthouse (Pharos) of Alexandria, symbol of the city and one of the Seven Wonders of the Ancient World. Diameter 2.3 CM., *The Barber Institute Coin Collection, RE367.*

Middle
103. Billon tetradrachm struck in Alexandria in the name of Empress Julia Paula, wife of Elagabalus (*reg* 218–22). The reverse depicts the Egyptian goddess Isis. Diameter 2.4 CM., *The Barber Institute Coin Collection, RE385.*

Bottom
104. Billon tetradrachm struck in Alexandria in the name of Empress Otacilia Severa, wife of Marcus Julius Philippus, known as Philip the Arab (*reg* 244–9). The obverse depicts the draped and diademed bust of Otacilia and the reverse a personification of the River Nile. Diameter 2.3 CM., *The Barber Institute Coin Collection, RE542.*

Another example of ancient Egyptian deities becoming very relevant to the life of the late Roman Empire is a fine faience plaque depicting the Egyptian god Horus, part of the Myers Collection at Eton College (fig. 105). Horus appears as a young curly haired Roman officer on horseback, spearing an ibex, the symbol of Seth, god of disorder and chaos. The image is quite a departure from the standard iconography of Horus as a falcon, falcon-headed man or child, and blends local religious tradition and Roman iconography. The only other known example that comes close to this iconography is a fourth-century example of Egyptian architectural sculpture, now in the Musée du Louvre.[9] Unlike the Myers Eton horseman, the Louvre figure, who is also dressed as a Roman officer, appears as the falcon-headed god and spears a crocodile rather than an ibex. In that respect the Myers Eton Horus is much closer to imagery encountered in contemporary Roman monumental sculpture and on coins. Equestrian statues of emperors, such as the one of Marcus Aurelius in Rome (*c.* AD 176), or military scenes depicted in the friezes of the triumphal arches of Titus and Constantine in Rome, convey the idea of the emperor as conqueror of Rome's enemies. Late Roman coins with similar imagery communicated this idea to a much wider audience thanks to their extensive mint output and wide circulation. Here again the emperor appears as a valiant soldier and protector of Rome, attacking his enemies or trampling them under his horse. The iconography of Horus in the Myers Eton plaque could also be linked to representations of the Holy Rider, an ancient motif whose popularity extended beyond the establishment of Christianity and can be seen on many early Byzantine bracelets (fig. 106) and amulets that clearly had an apotropaic function for their owners.[10] This idea of the mounted warrior attacking evil would eventually open the

Above
105. Horus on horseback spearing Seth, faience panel, 4th century AD, 36 × 30 × 7 CM., *Myers Collection at Eton College, ECM 2166.*

Left
106. Byzantine protective bracelet made of iron, 4th–7th centuries, height 2 CM., diameter 6.5 CM. *Musée du Louvre, Département des Antiquités égyptiennes, E17352; gift of the widow of Gaston Maspero.*

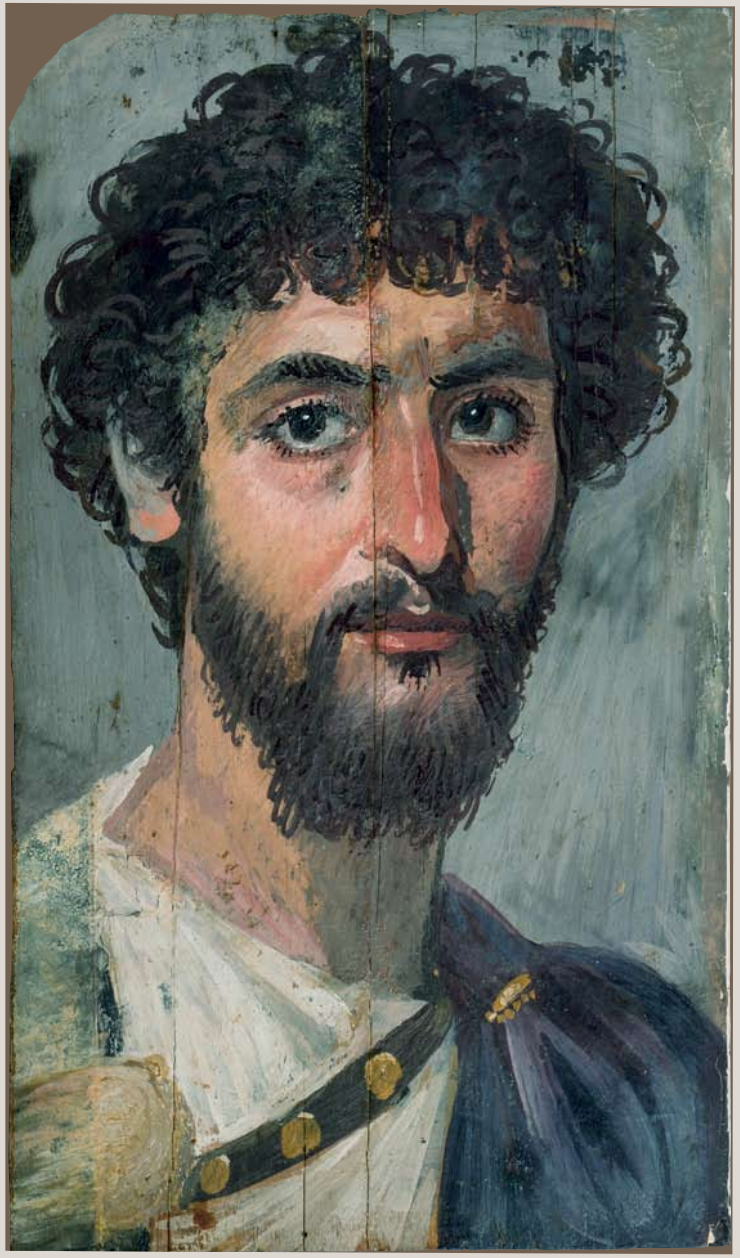
Right
107. Barbotine jar, Egypt, *c.* AD 150, 14 × 14 × 14 CM., *Myers Collection at Eton College, ECM 2190*. The characteristic feature of this pottery is the applied clay in various shapes on the surface of the ware. The result is highly decorative. The import of Barbotine ware into Egypt prompted beautiful local imitations such as this example.

way for the iconography of the warrior saints in Byzantium and western medieval Europe, and Horus and the ibex would find their equivalent in the representation of St George and the dragon.

Egypt's dialogue with Roman culture is also amply reflected in the local imitations generated by imported Roman pottery (fig. 107) and in new trends in art for the afterlife. These include Roman plaster mummy heads (fig. 108), a group of objects found mostly in cemeteries from between the first and third centuries AD at Arsinoe (Hawara) in the Faiyum area and at Antinoopolis, but also in Akhmim, Marina el-Alamein, the area of Thebes, Deir el-Medina and Saqqara. Portraits painted on limewood panels, sometimes attached to beautifully

Left
108. Roman-style portrait of a deceased male, made of plaster (a mixture of sand, clay, lime and gypsum), 2nd century AD, 27 × 17 × 22 CM., *Myers Collection at Eton College, ECM 1576*.

decorated mummy cases or set into the cloth that was used to wrap the bodies, depict men, women and children dressed and coiffed in a contemporary Roman fashion. The technique used was either tempera or the more expensive and lasting encaustic one, which involved the application of heated beeswax with naturally coloured pigments to a stucco wooden surface. The result was art created on an almost industrial scale for the middle-class citizens of those cities, and more expensive art for a smaller and wealthier clientele. The mass production involved tweaking standard workshop portraits to suit the features of an individual; for wealthier clients the artists created individual portraits that have been demonstrated in some



cases to bear a close resemblance to the mummified dead. The Myers Eton portrait of a man falls into the latter category owing to its skilful and very fine rendering of features (fig. 109). Some of the funerary panels depict people of a Latin or Greek appearance, while others look more Egyptian, Semitic or Nubian. The portraits reflect a Greco-Roman pictorial tradition that was adapted to Egyptian death rituals for a cosmopolitan population.[11] The sitters look extraordinarily modern, as Amelia Edwards noted:

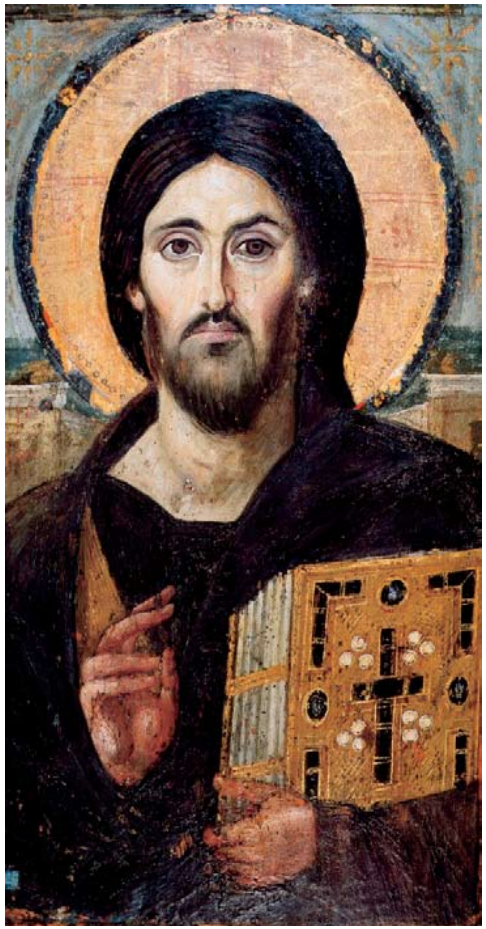
> As we look through this ancient and interesting portrait-gallery, we cannot but recognize our kinship with these men and women, these youths and maidens, who lived and loved and died nearly two thousand years ago.[12]

Opposite
109. Portrait of a man, encaustic on limewood, *c.* AD 165, 41 × 24 × 1 CM., *Myers Collection at Eton College, ECM 1473.*

Below
110. Pilgrim's clay oil flask from the shrine of St Menas, 6th–7th centuries. Height 15.1 CM., width 10.9 CM., *British Museum, Department of Prehistory and Europe, 1875-10-12-16.*

Byzantine Egypt

The third and fourth centuries AD were for Egypt a period of religious and cultural change. The emergence of the Desert Fathers, the hermits, monks and ascetics who fled cities to live in poverty, solitude and prayer in the Nitrian desert (Wadi el-Natrun), is a very important chapter in the history of Christian spirituality. St Anthony, St Athanassios, bishop of Alexandria, and St Menas, martyr and miracle-worker, are just some of the many holy men associated with Egypt. The locations where they lived or were buried became *loca sancta*, places of veneration that attracted pilgrims from across the Christian world.[13] The discovery on the Isle of Wight of sixth- or seventh-century clay flasks used by pilgrims to carry oil back from the shrine of St Menas (fig. 110) testifies to pilgrimage routes between Anglo-Saxon Britain and the Byzantine-controlled eastern Mediterranean.[14] Another famous pilgrimage centre in Egypt was the monastic site at Mount Sinai. The monastery was developed by Emperor Justinian I (*reg* 527–65) around a fourth-century chapel built by Constantine I's mother Helena in honour of the Holy Bush seen by Moses. An early description of the site can be found in a travelogue composed by Egeria, a Gallic female pilgrim who visited the Holy Land between 381 and 384. The sixth-century monastery preserves a priceless collection of manuscripts and icons, the latter being among the few surviving examples of Byzantine icon painting before the iconoclastic controversy of the



Above
111. Icon of *Christ Pantocrator*, encaustic on limewood, 6th–7th centuries, 84.5 × 44.8 см., *Monastery of St Catherine, Mount Sinai.*

eighth and ninth centuries. The iconographical and stylistic similarity between these sixth- and seventh-century icons (fig. 111) and the Egyptian funerary portraits from the first to the third centuries is extraordinary, and an enduring reminder of the great debt Christian pictorial art owes to the Greco-Roman tradition.

Egypt remained within the Byzantine realm until the second decade of the seventh century.[15] Throughout that period the area served as the bread-basket of the Byzantine Empire and goods were manufactured there on an almost industrial basis, greatly contributing to its economic wealth. Alexandria was the most important port of the eastern Mediterranean. The mint, whose production had been reduced by the fifth century to only the lowest copper denominations of nummi, revived in the sixth century and was active from the reign of Emperor Justin II (*reg* 565–82) until the first year of Constans II's rule (641). Its new copper coinage, unlike the standard Byzantine follis (40-nummi coin) and its denominations, was based on Egypt's old monetary system of billon tetradrachms. The values, style and iconography of these coins, minted in denominations of twelve nummi (figs. 112 and 115) and the fractions of six and three nummi, set them apart from the rest of the Byzantine copper currency. Justinian I's economic reforms of 538/9 and the introduction of the heavy follis bearing his facing bust appear to have had an impact on the production of the Alexandria mint. A new heavy multiple of the twelve-nummi coin was introduced, valued at 33 nummi (fig. 112). As for the production of gold coins, this started under Justinian I and continued with intervals until the fall of Alexandria to the Arabs in 641 (figs. 113–115). Due to their distinctive monetary values, copper coins of Alexandria mostly satisfied the needs of the internal market. When Alexandrian coins appear among coin finds in other parts of the Byzantine world their presence is connected to pilgrimage and the provisioning of Constantinople with Egyptian grain. Alexandrian coins recorded from Syria and Palestine from the reign of Justin II onwards are a reflection of the geography of transport of people and commodities that linked Alexandria to those areas in the second half of the sixth century and the early seventh.[16] The city, far from being only a major port for incoming and outgoing traffic, also became a hotbed of religious

Top, left and middle, left
112. Copper 33-nummi coin of Emperor Justinian I, and 12-nummi coin of Emperor Justinian I, both mint of Alexandria. Diameters 3 см. and 1.5 см., *The Barber Institute Coin Collection, B923 and B926.*

Bottom, left
113. Gold solidus of Justin II, mint of Alexandria. Diameter 2 см., *The Barber Institute Coin Collection, B1541.*

Top, right
114. Gold solidus of Herakleios, struck in Alexandria in 608 during his revolt against Emperor Phocas. The two frontal facing bearded busts belong to Herakleios and his father. Diameter 1.9 см., *The Barber Institute Coin Collection, B2706.*

Middle, right and bottom, right
115. Gold solidus and copper 12-nummi coin of Herakleios, both struck in Alexandria. The inclusion on the obverse of both coins of Herakleios Constantine, the son of Herakleios, publicizes him as co-emperor. Diameter 2.2 см., *The Barber Institute Coin Collection, B2749;* Diameter 1.6 см., *The Barber Institute Coin Collection, B3517.*

Above
116. The Liturgy of St Basil according to the Coptic Monophysite Church. The 19th-century manuscript is divided into two columns, the first of which is in Coptic and the second in Arabic. All the rubrics are in Arabic.
237 leaves, 23.4 × 16.2 CM., *The Mingana Collection, The University of Birmingham Special Collections, Mingana Chr. Arab. 9.*

violence and controversy, marked by the expulsion of its Jewish population in 415 and the alienation of its local Church from that of Constantinople following the condemnation of the Monophysites at the fourth Ecumenical Council of 451. It was in that context that the Coptic Church of Egypt developed and the important part it has played in Egypt's social and religious life and art for the last 1,500 years is testimony to its vitality (fig. 116). In 618/19 Byzantine Egypt was overrun by the Persians. After a spell of Byzantine reoccupation (628/9–39), Alexandria, the second most important city in the Empire after Constantinople, fell to the armies of 'Amr ibn al-'As in 641; the conquest of Egypt was complete by 646. In the early years of the conquest the new masters of Egypt made effective use of Byzantine administrative structures, including the technological and artistic knowhow of the mint of Alexandria. The first Islamic coins struck in Alexandria are based on Byzantine prototypes, and in themselves provide a fascinating commentary on patterns of cultural continuity and change in seventh-century Egypt.[17]

Endnotes

1 On the interrelationship between the Minoans, Mycenaeans and Egypt, see B. J. Kemp and R. S. Merrillees, with a chapter by Elmar Edel, *Minoan Pottery in Second Millennium Egypt* (Mainz, 1980); V. Hankey and D. Aston, 'Mycenaean Pottery at Saqqara: Finds from Excavations by the Egypt Exploration Society of London and the Rijksmuseum Van Oudheden, Leiden, 1975–1990', in J. B. Carter and S. P. Morris, eds, *The Ages of Homer: A Tribute to Emily Townsend Vermeule* (Austin, TX, 1995), pp. 67–92; L. Schofield and W. V. Davies, eds, *Egypt, the Aegean and the Levant: Interconnections in the Second Millenium BC* (London, 1995); L. Steele, 'Egypt and the Mediterranean World', in T. Wilkinson, ed., *The Egyptian World* (London, 2007), pp. 459–75.

2 W.D.E. Coulson, *Ancient Naukratis*, II: *The Survey at Naukratis and Environs*, pt 1 (Oxford, 1996); A. Leonard, Jr, 'Ancient Naukratis: Excavations at a Greek Emporium in Egypt. Part I: The Excavations at Kom Ge'if', *Annual of the American Schools of Oriental Research*, LIV (1997) [whole issue]; A. Möller, *Naukratis: Trade in Archaic Greece*, Oxford Monographs on Classical Archaeology (Oxford, 2000).

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4 O. Mørkholm, *Early Hellenistic Coinage: From the Accesion of Alexander to the Peace of Apamea (336–188 BC)*, ed. P. Grierson and U. Westermark (Cambridge, 1991).

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6 On the Egyptian Osiris-Apis and the Greek Serapis see M. Bommas, *Heiligtum und Mysterium. Griechenland und seine Ägyptischen Gottheiten* (Mainz am Rhein, 2005) pp. 24–9.

7 S. Walker and P. Higgs, eds, *Cleopatra of Egypt* (London, 2001).

8 On the coinage of Roman Alexandria see J.G. Milne, 'Pictorial Coin-Types at the Roman Mint of Alexandria', *The Journal of Egyptian Archaeology*, XXIX (1943), pp. 63–6; J.W. Curtis, 'Pictorial Coin Types at the Roman Mint of Alexandria: a Third Supplement', *Journal of Egyptian Archaeology*, XLI (1955), pp. 119–20; S. Handler, 'Architecture on the Roman Coins of Alexandria', *American Journal of Archaeology*, LXXV/1 (1971), pp. 57–74; J. G. Milne and C. M. Cray, *Catalogue of Alexandrian Coins in the Ashmolean Museum* (London, 1971, revised version of the 1933 edition and with new types added 1933–71 by C. M. Cray); E. Christiansen, *The Roman Coins of Alexandria: Quantitative Studies*, 2 vols (Aarhus, 1988). The economic and monetary situation in fourth-century Egypt is discussed by R. Bagnall in *Currency and Inflation in Fourth Century Egypt*, BASP Supplements, 5 (Atlanta, GA, 1985). I would like to thank N. Hampartumian, Honorary Keeper of Coins at the Barber Institute, for sharing his knowledge and expertise on the coinage of Roman Egypt.

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